

The contingent value of process information in online manufacturing time prediction*

Thanh Phan^{1,*†}, Kai Hoberg^{1,†}

¹Kühne Logistics University, XXXX, 20457, Hamburg, Germany

Abstract

Online prediction of when a job will complete is critical for shop floor planning, customer communication, and intervention. Models can rely on the aggregate state of the system (queueing models, time series) or case-level trajectories using event logs to estimate job outcomes. Prior work has overlooked how characteristics of the manufacturing process affect the incremental accuracy gain of case-based over state-based predictions. Using discrete event simulation with configurable parameters of a manufacturing process, and analyzing synthetic event data, we find this gain is smallest in processes with low path entropy and low between-path time variance. We propose a contingency view that links the value of case-level data to quantified process structure.

Keywords

online time prediction, predictive process monitoring, manufacturing, operations management

1. Introduction

Lead time prediction is a prominent problem in manufacturing operations management, as it is critical for production planning, customer communication, and process improvement. Traditionally, this is a problem approached from an apriori perspective, producing a single estimate of total cycle time or time of completion at job arrival (). The classical OR approach rely on the state of the system, meaning how congested the system is relative to its capacity, to estimate how long jobs will take. The modeler can dynamize the prediction by feeding the predictor with the most up-to-date information of WIP, as well as other job and shop characteristics at prediction point, however once a prediction is made and the job is released into the workflow, no new prediction is made. As an industry heuristic, remaining time is derived by subtracting elapsed time as the job progresses (top down) or by summing up the average historical run time of the remaining stages in the process (bottom up).

However, the increasing availability of detailed event log data from manufacturing execution systems creates both the opportunity and the pressure to move beyond this static approach. This is particularly timely as manufacturers transition toward more flexible manufacturing systems (Weckenborg et al., 2024), where longer, more complex production processes with increasingly variable routing make a single upfront prediction insufficient — and where the job’s own unfolding path becomes a critical source of predictive information. (CLAUDE’s proofread need to change later)

Predictive process monitoring (PPM) is a newer approach that emerged within the relatively young field of process mining, which relies on case-level path information extracted from event logs, including the sequence of activities/machines visited(control flow), the timestamp of each completed activity (payload), and conditions each prediction on the individual job’s history , treating the job’s specific trajectory through the process as the primary source of predictive information. The core assumption is that future values will be similar to past jobs where the trace (routing, elapsed time, context) was

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*Corresponding author.

† These authors contributed equally.

✉ kulyabov-ds@rudn.ru (T. Phan); i.tiddi@vu.nl (K. Hoberg)

🌐 <https://yamadharma.github.io/> (T. Phan); <https://kmitd.github.io/ilaria/> (K. Hoberg)

🆔 0000-0002-0877-7063 (T. Phan); 0000-0001-7116-9338 (K. Hoberg)



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the same. System-wide state features can also be leveraged, but the case-level prefix is precondition to make any prediction at all. As such, PPM algorithms are able to produce a new of the remaining time or completion time of an ongoing job after completion of each stage, incorporating its most recent progresses. The ability to dynamically reflect on the job's own routing history and improve means the case-path approach supposedly provides better accuracy than the more static, state-based predictors. (Maybe save some details for Literature Review?)

Still, these path-aware models represent significant investment in data handling, information systems and modelling capabilities. This raises an important question for both OM and PPM researchers, and more broadly for operational predictive analytics research: Under what circumstances does case-path information significantly elevate predictive performance? Conversely, when do state-based approaches offer adequate accuracy? As PPM studies increasingly incorporate queueing-related features into ML predictors, understanding the conditions under which each type of information matters most becomes essential for designing efficient and effective prediction systems. In this study, we tackle this problem from an intuitive lens: the structural characteristics of the manufacturing process itself. Specifically, we study how two measurements of a process' structure influence the informational value of path knowledge (knowing all the possible paths and being able to infer the remaining route of the job), and therefore, determine the conditions under which case-path prediction has the biggest advantage over the traditional state-based approach.

The first measurement is between-path variance, specifically how much of total cycle time variance is explained by the choice of path, and the second measurement is the frequency distribution of paths across all observed jobs.

Our study establishes and provides first evidence for a contingency view that link the predictive value of case-path information to process characteristics. We show that while the case-path model outperforms on all datasets, in processes with.....and that exist an interaction effect between the two dimensions. Our paper's value lies in addressing the two tensions:

First,

The remainder of this paper is organized as follows. Section 2 reviews the literature on ... Section 3

2. Literature Review

2.1. The State-based approach to Lead Time Prediction problem in Manufacturing OR

Queueing Theory is the study of queues...Especially important in manufacturing where the majority of cycle time comes from waiting in queues rather than actual processing.

Time Series Analysis is a versatile method used in a wide variety of predictive problems, including cycle times () and wait times () in manufacturing systems. Its core focus is on temporal patterns and trends.

2.2. The case-path alternative

Predictive Process Monitoring is a branch of process mining that aims at predicting the future of an ongoing (uncompleted) process execution (job). Typical examples of predictions include categorical outcome, the sequence of the next activities, or completion time of the job (Francescomarino Ghidini, 2022). PPM allows the practitioner to prevent violations and improve the outcome of the job real-time. PPM approaches usually leverage past historical executions to provide predictions about the future of an ongoing job. The high-level implementation workflow is similar to that of a general ML problem, as it consists of 2 phases: a training or learning phase, where a predictive model is learned from logs of historical (complete) jobs. Specifically, the partial trace of activities, timestamps, and contextual attributes recorded for a case up to the prediction point. The core (simplified) assumption is that future completion/remaining time will resemble those of historical jobs whose prefixes were similar: jobs that

visited the same sequence of stations, consumed similar time at each stage, or uoperated under similar conditions are expected to complete in similar ways.

PPM approaches can be divided into generative and discriminative models ().

and a runtime/prediction phase, where the model is queried for predicting thefuture of an ongoing case (Francescomarino Ghidini, 2022). In this study, we focus on remaining time prediction. Time prediction in PPM are generally split into generative and discriminative methods.

2.3. The tension and motivation for our study

Most time prediction studies in both OM and PPM perform mass evaluation to find the most consistently outperformning model(s), without asking "under what circumstances", or how these model's relative accuracy changes across different kinds of dataset or process. We see this as a missed opportunity to deepen understanding of the technologies that exist, and use that understanding to fuel both effective application as well as development of new technologies that address the caveats of the existing ones.

For us, it was natural to suspect that predictive accuracy depends not only on model sophistication or data richness, but also on the characteristics of the data, and therefore, the target process. Yet we are not aware of any study systematically addressing the relationship between the characteristics of the process itself and the effectiveness of a time prediction model. Some studies have explored the boundaries of existing predictors, yet they use different lens from ours. Like us, Bassamboo and Ibrahim (2020) seek to move beyond mass evaluation and develop a contingency view to explain the relative perfomance of different prediction methods. Specifically, they compare the accuracy of static (average waiting times over a long horizon) against a dynamic LES snapshot predictor. However, our perspectives differ quite significantly: Bassomboo and Ibrahim study single-stage queuesand assume that a single announcement is made at the moment a customer (job) arrives and is never updated. We study predictions that are continuously upadted as a case progresses through multiple stages of a manufacturing process, incorporating new information about the job after every activity completion. Second, their contingency criterion is based on statistical propoerty - the correlation between predictor and outcome, whereas our criterion is based on the properties of the process itself.

3. Theoretical framework

We try to address the research question by first asking: *What structural characteristics of a process make path knowledge beneficial?* Naturally, there are two main characteristics.

3.1. Explained variance by path choice

First: *How much of cycle time variance can be explained by different choices of path?* This characteristic can be measured as the ratio of between-path variance to total variance:

$$D_{\text{path}} = \frac{\text{Var}_{\text{between}}}{\text{Var}_{\text{total}}} \quad (1)$$

Where:

$$\text{Var}_{\text{total}} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N (CT_i - \overline{CT})^2 \quad (2)$$

$$\text{Var}_{\text{between}} = \sum_{p=1}^K \pi_p (\overline{CT}_p - \overline{CT})^2 \quad (3)$$

$$\text{Var}_p = \frac{1}{n_p} \sum_{j=1}^{n_p} (CT_j - \overline{CT}_p)^2 \quad (4)$$

3.2. Distribution of paths

Second: *Does the process have few dominant paths, or evenly distributed paths?* To measure this characteristic, we use Shannon entropy, a concept from Information Theory (Shannon, 1948):

$$H = - \sum_{p=1}^K \pi_p \log \pi_p \quad (5)$$

We normalize entropy to make it comparable across different numbers of paths:

$$H_{\text{norm}} = \begin{cases} 0 & \text{if } K = 1 \\ \frac{H}{\log K} & \text{if } K > 1 \end{cases} \quad (6)$$

Interpretation:

- $H_{\text{norm}} = 0$: all cases follow a single path
- $H_{\text{norm}} = 1$: all paths are equally likely

We use the natural logarithm in computing entropy. Since H_{norm} is normalized by $\log K$, the choice of logarithmic base does not affect the results.

3.3. Notation

Symbol	Description
N	Total number of cases
K	Number of distinct machine-level paths
n_p	Number of cases using path p
$\pi_p = \frac{n_p}{N}$	Probability (share) of path p
p	Path index, $1 \leq p \leq K$
CT_i	Cycle time of case i
$\overline{CT}$	Mean cycle time of all cases
$\overline{CT}_p$	Mean cycle time of path p
Var_p	Variance of cycle time within path p
H	Shannon entropy

Table 1

Notation used in the theoretical framework

Intuitively, the performance gap between knowing and not knowing the path is widest in processes with high D_{path} and low H_{norm} .

3.4. Relative Accuracy Gain (RAG)

The next problem is defining and measuring this performance gap. MAE (Mean Absolute Error) is a common evaluation metric used for benchmarking in PPM studies. The limitation of MAE is that it is scale-dependent, meaning it is not reliable for comparison across different datasets. We therefore use MAE to create a scale-independent metric, which we call the Relative Accuracy Gain (RAG):

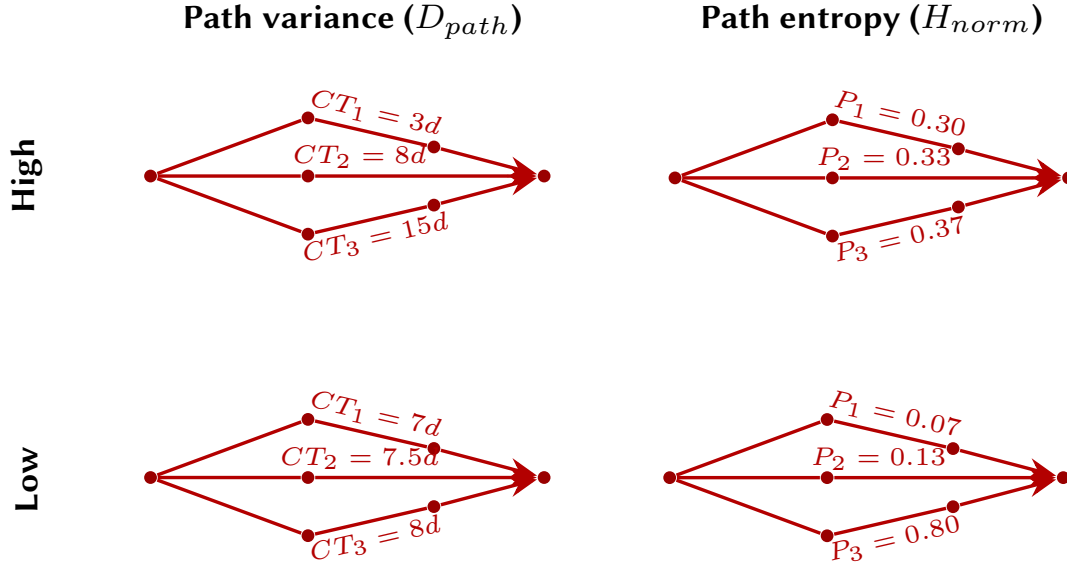
$$\text{RAG} = \frac{MAE_{\text{FA}} - \min(MAE_{\text{SES}}, MAE_{\text{QT}})}{MAE_{\text{FA}}} \quad (7)$$

Where the Mean Absolute Error (MAE) for each model is defined as:

$$\text{MAE} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N |R_i - \hat{R}_i| \quad (8)$$

Notation:

Figure 1: Illustrative examples of D_{path} and H_{norm} behavior



N : Total number of events evaluated in the test set

i : Event index

R_i : Actual remaining time

$\hat{R}_i$: Predicted remaining time

The RAG compares the performance of the process-aware model (FA) against the best-performing system-state baseline (SES or QT). The interpretation of the metric is as follows:

- **Positive RAG:** Indicates that the FA (Case view) model is more accurate.
- **Negative RAG:** Indicates that the SES or QT (System-state view) models are more accurate.

4. Methodology

Let us recall that the main focus of the study is to investigate the relationship between process characteristics and the predictive performance. This is often hard to do with empirical data, because different real-life event logs come from vastly different settings and industries, with varying sample sizes, available attributes, quantities, etc., not just process complexity, making it difficult to isolate the impact of structural process characteristics on the final performance. We overcome this limitation by using controlled simulation to compare different event logs with varying levels of process structural complexity while still keeping the general setup.

We assume a manufacturing setup where the machines are equipped with readers that produce only completion timestamps for each activity. If a dataset has both start and completion timestamps for each event, one can also estimate the queue lengths and wait time at each machine, however this is not a realistic setup for most organizations, and is also not necessary to establish standard prefix data.

For both SES and Little's Law, we implement the predictors with a top down approach, meaning we predict the total cycle time at the beginning of the job, using timestamps of only the first and the last activities, lock this prediction in, only deriving remaining time from subtracting elapsed time. This reflects the classical apriori OM approach and implementation is simple.

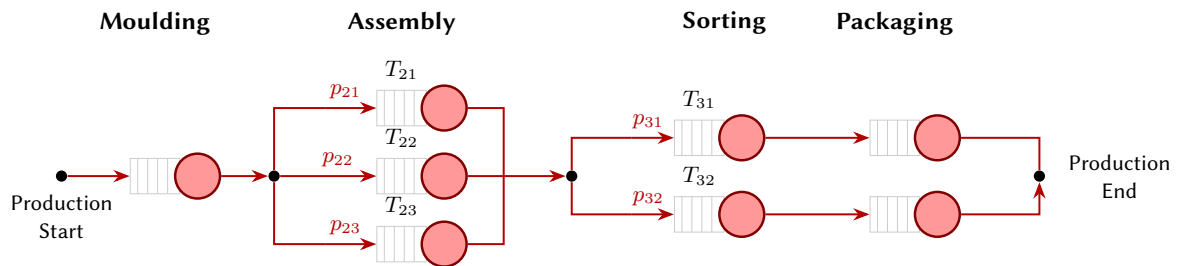
For Flow Analysis, we leverage also the data from the intermediary stations. However, since only completion timestamps are available, the predictor only knows system-wide WIP, not machine-level congestion, and no other job or shop characteristics are used as input features. The only information advantage FA has over the state-based baselines is the case-path data.

4.1. Discrete Event Simulation

The purpose of the DES is to generate synthetic event logs datasets used for implementation of the predictors. We developed a simulation framework that builds upon the source code from Busch & Leopold (2026). Specifically, the general object model for processes, tasks and resources, as well as basic event-scheduling loop was reused. The process structures, task sets, and routing logic were reconfigured to represent a multi-station manufacturing line with quality control and rework, inspired by Lorenz et al. (2021). The fixed assumptions include:

- An open, single-class Jackson network, with exponential arrival and service rates, and probabilistic routing. We selected an average arrival rate of 0.28^* (time unit is the simulation clock time units). This means that in different simulation runs of length 1000, there might be approximately 270 or 290 jobs but on average across many runs, the average will be around 280 jobs.
- No machine breakdown
- Machines are assigned through a First Come First Served (FCFS) Policy
- Unlimited queue length
- No buffer inventory
- Transport time between stations on the conveyor system is not logged, assuming immediate transfer, meaning all time is spent either waiting in queues or being processed on machines.
- Run time is 30000*

Figure 2: Illustrative manufacturing scenario: stages and parameters.



At the activity level, the process follows a fixed sequential production line layout, where every job visits every stage in the same order (Papadopoulos and Heavey;198X, 1996) and follows the same path. In our study, however, we define paths at the machine level: two jobs completing the same stage on different machines are considered to be on distinct paths. This machine-level definition creates Dpath and Hnorm variation in a fixed sequence production line, while reflecting the granularity often seen in equipped manufacturing systems. A second source of path variation is probabilistic rework: jobs failing quality control re-enter that stage's queue, extending their machine-level trace as well as cycle time.

For each job, the simulator records the completion times for each activity, the used resources and a timestamp.

The generated logs are then preprocessed into prefix data for making predictions using the following procedure:

Table 2
Experimental factors, their levels, and theoretical justification

Factor	Levels	Why
Queue style	• Pooled: machines share one queue • Dedicated: each machine has its own queue • Hybrid	Dedicated routing creates more distinct path combinations, leading to higher H_{norm} .
QC Pass Rate	1.0, 0.99, 0.97, 0.95, 0.90	Lower pass rates introduce rework loops, increasing H_{norm} and creating cycle time variance between rework vs. non-rework cases.
# of activities (stations)	5, 8, 12	Additional stations create more branching points (higher H_{norm}) and accumulate more path-based cycle time variances (higher D_{path}).
Machine Heterogeneity	• Identical: Equal service rates • Strong: Service speeds differ greatly • Mild: Slight speed differences	Differences in server speed create fixed cycle time differences between specific paths, resulting in higher D_{path} .

To avoid initialization bias, the first 17% of cases were trimmed off, along with any incomplete case by the end of runtime. To generate a wide range of $\{D_{path}\}$ and $\{H_{norm}\}$ values across the datasets, the pipeline allows for experimenting with the following factors.

4.2. Title variants

5. Results

We assume a manufacturing setup where the machines are equipped with readers that produce only completion timestamps for each activity. If a dataset has both start and completion timestamps for each event, one can also estimate the queue lengths and wait time at each machine, however this is not a realistic setup for most organizations, and is also not necessary to establish standard prefix data. From these timestamps, three information sources can be derived: 1) Historical cycle times of all past cases 2) System-wide WIP - by counting open jobs (started but not completed) 3) Case-specific prefix - including the sequence of stations and resources visited and elapsed time for each job. For both SES and Little's Law, we implement the predictors with a top down approach, meaning we predict the total cycle time at the beginning of the job, using timestamps of only the first and the last activities, lock this prediction in, only deriving remaining time from subtracting elapsed time. This reflects the classical apriori OM approach and implementation is simple.

For Flow Analysis, we leverage also the data from the intermediary stations. However, since only completion timestamps are available, the predictor only knows system-wide WIP, not machine-level congestion, and no other job or shop characteristics are used as input features. The only information advantage FA has over the state-based baselines is the case-path data.

6. Discussion

We assume a manufacturing setup where the machines are equipped with readers that produce only completion timestamps for each activity. If a dataset has both start and completion timestamps for each event, one can also estimate the queue lengths and wait time at each machine, however this is not a realistic setup for most organizations, and is also not necessary to establish standard prefix data.

For both SES and Little’s Law, we implement the predictors with a top down approach, meaning we predict the total cycle time at the beginning of the job, using timestamps of only the first and the last activities, lock this prediction in, only deriving remaining time from subtracting elapsed time. This reflects the classical apriori OM approach as well as the information capabilities of most manufacturers, and the implementation is simple.

For Flow Analysis, we leverage also the data from the intermediary stations. However, since only completion timestamps are available, the predictor only knows system-wide WIP, not machine-level congestion, and no other job or shop characteristics are used as input features. The only information advantage FA has over the state-based baselines is the case-path data.

7. Conclusion

We thereby introduce a contingency view that links process characteristics to predictive value of two different information types/approaches. This study directly addresses lead time prediction problems in multi-stage processes with probabilistic routing where all jobs are visible, which is an unique characteristic of manufacturing job shops, online retail fulfillment ETA. However, the relevance extends further. Consider a service system where the prediction target is the wait time for a single queue (e.g., patients waiting to start treatment). This appears to be a one-stage problem. But the service itself (the treatment) may consist of multiple internal stages whose durations vary systematically with patient characteristics and path. By improving the prediction of this internal multi-stage service duration, our method indirectly improves the accuracy of the external queue wait time prediction. The total time from arrival to departure is the sum of queue wait and service time; better prediction of the latter benefits the former. Thus, even problems that present as single-stage can benefit from this research whenever the underlying service has decomposable structure.

Another limitation of this study is that we stop the analysis at predictive accuracy without translating it to actual economic costs of either approaches. This is an area where we believe the practitioner-the owner of the process, can bridge the gap, as they understand what their process looks like, what the purpose of the prediction is, and also the specific tangible costs associated with accuracy loss and IT capital investment. As such, our study serves as the initial evidence for the presence as well as the contingent magnitude of the simplicity-accuracy tradeoff they are making.

7.1. Authors and Affiliations

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Table 3
Frequency of Special Characters

Non-English or Math	Frequency	Comments
Ø	1 in 1,000	For Swedish names
π	1 in 5	Common in math
\$	4 in 5	Used in business
Ψ_1^2	1 in 40,000	Unexplained usage

Table 4
Some Typical Commands

Command	A Number	Comments
<code>\author</code>	100	Author
<code>\table</code>	300	For tables
<code>\table*</code>	400	For wider tables

Immediately following this sentence is the point at which Table ?? is included in the input file; compare the placement of the table here with the table in the printed output of this document.

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10.2. Display Equations

A numbered display equation—one set off by vertical space from the text and centered horizontally—is produced by the `equation` environment. An unnumbered display equation is produced by the `displaymath` environment.

Again, in either environment, you can use any of the symbols and structures available in $\text{\LaTeX}$; this section will just give a couple of examples of display equations in context. First, consider the equation, shown as an inline equation above:

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{n} = 0. \quad (9)$$

Notice how it is formatted somewhat differently in the `displaymath` environment. Now, we’ll enter

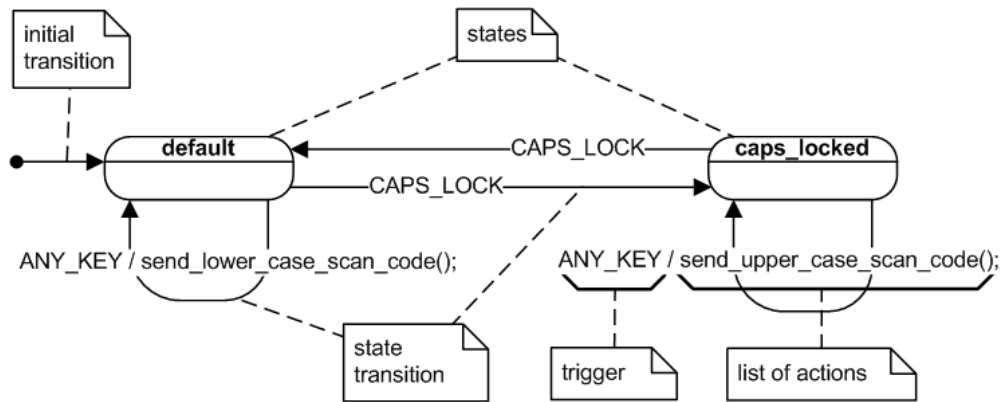


Figure 3: Sample UML state machine (source: https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/UML_state_machine, license CC BY-SA 3.0).

an unnumbered equation:

$$S_n = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i,$$

and follow it with another numbered equation:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} (1 + x)^{1/x} = e \quad (10)$$

just to demonstrate $\LaTeX$'s able handling of numbering.

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Figure captions are placed below the figure.

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The use of Bib $\TeX$ for the preparation and formatting of one’s references is strongly recommended. Authors’ names should be complete — use full first names (“Donald E. Knuth”) not initials (“D. E. Knuth”) — and the salient identifying features of a reference should be included: title, year, volume, number, pages, article DOI, etc.

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```
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```

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```
\begin{acknowledgments}
  These are different acknowledgments.
\end{acknowledgments}
```

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Start the appendix with the “`\appendix`” command:

```
\appendix
```

and note that in the appendix, sections are lettered, not numbered.

Acknowledgments

Thanks to the developers of ACM consolidated LaTeX styles <https://github.com/borisveytsman/acmart> and to the developers of Elsevier updated L^AT_EX templates <https://www.ctan.org/tex-archive/macros/latex/contrib/els-cas-templates>.

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